

Appendix. Ethnographic Sources

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1 Africa

1.1 Central Africa

1.1.1 Barundi

Meyer, H., & Handzik, H. (1916). The Barundi: an ethnological study of German East Africa. Ott Spamer. p139. <https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fo58-001>

“The eldest son also inherits the religious and professional attributes and skills of his father. If the father was a priest (kiranga), sorcerer, medicine man (umufumu), or blacksmith (umususi), etc., the eldest son becomes — or remains — in the same position or profession by inheriting from his father the insignia and tools, in addition to the expert training. Thus, certain professions remain the prerogative of certain families. If the mother is an expert of some sort, she will pass on her skills to her eldest daughter.”

1.2 Southern Africa

1.2.1 Tanala

Linton, R. (1933). The Tanala, a hill tribe of Madagascar. In Publication 317. Anthropological series (Vol. xxii, p. 334). [s.n.]. p256-258. <https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fy08-001>

“While I was in Ambohimanga the boys frequently brought me small models of traps which they had made. These were offered for sale and I doubt whether such models were used in their own play. They begin to make real traps for small birds and mammals at a very early age. Tanala toys seem to be characterized by an almost complete absence of replicas of things used by adults. I never saw any small figures of cattle or chickens, although such playthings are very common among the plateau tribes, or any miniature tools or utensils. The girls did not even have dolls.”

1.2.2 Tonga

Colson, E., & for Social Research, U. of Zambia. I. (1958). Marriage & the family among Plateau Tonga of Northern Rhodesia. Manchester University Press. p262-263. <https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fq12-015>

“Today with the scarcity of game throughout most of the area, few receive training in hunting or fishing. Other learning, such as skill in constructing dwellings and granaries and in making various tools or utensils, is fitted into the daily round and extends throughout childhood, since it does not clash with herding duties as does field work.”

1.3 Western Africa

1.3.1 Akan

Rattray, R. S. (Robert Sutherland). 1927. “Religion and Art in Ashanti.” In . Oxford, England: Clarendon Press. p271-272. <https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fe12-002>.

“In Ashanti, a generation or so ago, every stool in use had its own particular significance and its own special name which denoted the sex, or social status, or clan of the owner. The village of Afwia, a few miles from Coomassie, was the centre, in olden days, of the stool-carving industry. Sons

and sisters' sons were equally allowed to learn the art of carving, from father or uncle respectively. Many of the stools shown here were the 'copyright' of the Ashanti king, and might not, on any account, be sold in the open market; 2 they were first given to the king, who would then present them to chiefs whom he wished to honour. A woman might not carve a stool—because of the ban against menstruation. A woman in this state was formerly not even allowed to approach wood-carvers while at work, on pain of death or of a heavy fine. This fine was to pay for sacrifices to be made upon the ancestral stools of the dead kings, and also upon the wood-carver's tools. If any wood-carver's wife was unfaithful to her husband, and the latter, being unaware of this, went to work, then 'his tools would cut him severely.' A wood-carver might not go to work leaving unsettled any quarrel or grievance with his parents."

1.3.2 Igbo

Ottenberg, S. (1975). Masked rituals of Afikpo, the context of an African art. In *Index of art in the Pacific Northwest* (Issue 9, pp. 229, [8] leaves of plates). Published for the Henry Art Gallery by the University of Washington Press. p69. <https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=ff26-030>

"Sometime after he was initiated, he started carving secret society masks. His father had been a carver but had died long before Chukwu was old enough to learn from him. All of his father's masks had been destroyed in the fire during the British invasion of Afikpo in 1902. Chukwu, then, combined his past experience at carving as an enna with what he learned from his older brother, who helped teach him. In fact, he had learned many of the primary techniques of mask carving (but not in wood or calabash) and of coloring when he was an enna. Many boys at that time try their hand at the work. During that period he was unaware that his older brother, Oko, who was already initiated, was carving secret society masks, because members of the secret society do not reveal this fact to nonmembers, even in their own family. Similarly, his eldest brother did not know that Chukwu was making enna masks, for members of these enna groups are also secretive to outsiders about their activities. For the noninitiate, then, the stimulus to carve comes not from older persons—elders or professional carvers—but largely from the criticisms and rewards of age-mates. Chukwu's carving skills were basically learned when he was a child. When away from home in the Enugu area and at Makurdi, he apparently did no carving, but acquired considerable skill in the use of Western-type carpenter's tools, which undoubtedly contributed to his later

success as a carver.”

1.3.3 Kpelle

Lancy, D. F. (1984). Work, play and learning in a Kpelle town. Xerox University Microfilms. p157-158. <https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fd06-009>

p157-158

“Certain tasks are quite complex and require training which could be called an apprenticeship. These tasks include medicine making (Zo), leather-working, pottery, blacksmithing, and cloth weaving. Blacksmithing, at least, is learned during an apprenticeship. Jawo-Gbala was apprenticed to his mother’s brother. At first he only helped out on occasion by bringing wood for the forge and by operating the bellows. But even before this Jawo remembers sitting on a log at one end of the “shop” and watching his uncle work. At fourteen he began a formal apprenticeship which lasted three years. His father “gave” him to his uncle, then, at the end of the apprenticeship, he “gave” him back to his parents. Jawo-Gbala first learned to make a knife blade, then a machete, later still he learned to carve wooden handles and to forge the hoe and the adze. These latter two require bending the hot iron which must be done with care to avoid breaking it. His uncle made few comments while Jawo-Gbala was working, only when he had finished a tool would he give a critique. He wasn’t allowed to keep a piece until it was perfect, nor could he make a machete until he’d mastered the knife, a hoe until he’d mastered the machete and so on. When he did make a mistake, or did sloppy work, his teacher would beat and berate him and order him to destroy what he’d made. During the apprenticeship, he paid his uncle through his work. He would make tools for people who would, in turn, agree to work on Kuu on his uncle’s farm. The apprenticeship terminated when Jawo-Gbala had mastered all the tools including these needed in the actual blacksmithing and he set up his own forge.”

p177-178 (contextual information)

"If one had a lot of time (say two years) to spend observing young children at Neé-pele, one would, I believe, record instances of all the important adult activities of the society. Some other examples of Neé-pele that I did observe:

Children on the farm make their own Kuu. Boys sing and swing their sticks (= machetes) at the weeds. Girls cook dirt (= rice) in snail shells (= pots) over sticks the boys have fetched for the “fire.”

A girl makes thread from pissava palm fibers (actually strips the fiber into threads rather than twisting it) which she winds onto a “bobbin.” This she gives to a boy who has made a “loom” from bamboo sticks. He lays two sticks on the ground, parallel to each other to represent heddles, and moves his feet up and down as if to raise and lower them. Leaves or paper represent the woven cloth and this is divided up among the “children” for their “clothes.”

Boys play at blacksmith. Sticks represent the tools, the anvil is a rock and the tongs are a piece of bamboo that has been partially split along its length. Different types and sizes of sticks represent different hammers. The finished machete (a flat piece of wood) is given to its “owner” who goes off to cut brush with it.

Many men from Gbarngasuakwelle have, at one time or another, gone down to the coast to work for a few months, for wages, in the Firestone rubber plantation. I observedinsert_drive_file178 a seven year old boy with his younger brothers and sisters reenacting the homecoming scene of a worker returned from Firestone. He had made a carrier basket of palm thatch and proceeded to distribute to his “wife and children”: dirt (= salt), leaves (= clothes), sticks (= shoes), rope (= belt), gourds (= pots) and cowrie shells (= money).

Several boys aged eight to ten practice palm-tree climbing, to “cut palm nuts.” They play on a coconut tree which has a convenient curve in it not found in the oil-palm tree making it easier to climb the first few feet. Their Baling is a strip of bamboo which they loop around the trunk and hold at their sides."

Lancy, D. F. (1996). Playing on the mother-ground: cultural routines for children's development. In Culture and human development (pp. xii, 240). Guilford press. p89-90 <https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fd06-031>

p89-90 "Make-believe play can provide opportunities for children to acquire adult work habits and to rehearse social scenes. In many cases the transition from play work to real work is nearly seamless. However, some adult roles are just too complex to be acquired solely in the course of Neé-pele—blacksmithing, for example.

Let us compare, briefly, the blacksmith at work in his forge with children doing a make-believe recreation of blacksmithing. In the realm of social relations, the blacksmith enters into a number of reciprocal relationships: between himself and a helper, who may also be an apprentice; between himself and a client, for whom he makes a tool and from whom he exacts an obligation to work

on his farm; and and between his wife or wives who take care of many of his needs in return for his protection and maintenance. In the make-believe play we see these social relationships duplicated. A boy of 8 or so is the blacksmith; two other boys of roughly the same age act as clients. A younger boy serves as helper, holding a “tool” for the “blacksmith” to “hammer” and fetching woodchips for the “fire.” Finally, two girls, younger than 10, prepare and bring “food” for the smith to eat. The anvil is a rock and the tongs are a piece of bamboo that has been partially split along its length. Different types and sizes of sticks represent different hammers. The finished machete (a flat piece of wood) is given to its “owner,” who goes off to cut brush with it.

The “blacksmith” and his co-actors use the appropriate language in carrying out their make-believe. The older boy is addressed as “smith” or “old man,” the helper as “boy” or “son.” The girls as “wife.” The specialized blacksmith’s tools and paraphernalia are also referred to by their proper names.

The blacksmith possesses complex technical skills, the most important insert_drive_file90 of which is a basic understanding of metals and their reaction to various temperatures and stresses. Clearly, these technical skills are not acquired to any appreciable degree during make-believe play. The blacksmith is also an important ritual figure and will be called on to assist in administering oaths. I found no evidence to indicate that children were learning the ideological aspects of being a blacksmith through their play."

p61 (contextual information) “The blacksmith is the only skilled worker with a permanent workshop. This is an open-walled building with a sharply pitched thatched roof. Inside, is a forge that consists of two earthen mounds separated by a narrow trough in which a fire of woodchips is laid. An assistant works two leather bags which force air through bamboo tubes down and out a small opening at the base of the fire. A large and smaller rock serve as anvils and the blacksmith uses a variety of hammers, punches, and tongs in his work. A customer brings both the iron and the wood to be made into the requested tool—a blacksmith does only bespoke work. Formerly, iron, which is plentiful in the region, was smelted in local furnaces (Thomasson, 1987), but this practice has died out. Scrap iron is presently used. Only old men knew the secrets of iron smelting and one had to be initiated into these secrets, as in the Poro.”

p154-155 "Akewoli-la was 16 when he learned to weave a hammock; now he makes about 10 a year which he gives to friends. When he was 16 he saw a friend making a hammock. The friend asked Akewoli-la to help him, but Akewoli-la protested that he did not know how. The friend

offered to teach him, at no charge. In a week, Akewoli-la went off to make his own. It was very good and when he showed it to his teacher, the man jokingly accused him of knowing how to do it all along. Now Akewoli-la is teaching his son Tondolo (age 21) how to make a hammock. He teaches by demonstration, showing his son where to place and how to tie the knots.

Tondolo was anxious to make his own and did successfully with only a few minor corrections by his father. He is now working on his second. Every evening he spends about 2 hours twisting the fibers into twine and nearly has enough, after 2 weeks, to make the hammock. Other hammock makers reported that they first made miniature hammocks before making a full size one. Apparently these individuals began learning it at an early age, say, 12. I surmise that they did not have the patience to prepare enough twine for a full-size one and were anxious to get into the actual hammock construction.

Lave and Wenger (1991) identified a cultural routine that fits the above cases very well—and also extends to apprenticeship (Chapter 9). They call this legitimate peripheral participation. Essentially, they have broadened the earlier conceptualization of Vygotskian theory. For example, the claim that all learning is social was taken to mean that learners would always be assisted by those who are more skilled—a claim the Kpelle material fails to substantiate. But there need not be an expert present to see the influence exerted by society on the learner. In each of the previous cases, we see individuals acquiring weaving skills to enhance their own social participation. As Sua indicates, if a girl wants to “look nice,” to match the appearance of women, she must learn the skills to dress and decorate herself. In attempting to do so, she will be accorded the status of a “legitimate peripheral participant.” She may be supplied with materials insert_drive_file155 and someone competent may agree to model the skill and also to critique the fledgling product. Miniature tools may be supplied. Overall, the society will treat these initial forays with respect—at worst, mild teasing is employed.

The technical teaching covers all skills: plaiting mats, weaving, basketry; making sieves, traps, fish nets, weirs; roofing, blacksmithing, hunting; carving dugouts, mortars and drums; making game boards. Other requirements are: proficiency in games, in drumming and dancing, learning songs and folktales. Certain equipment, such as blacksmith tools and game boards, is made only in the bush and may therefore not be sold. A large part of the training period is taken up with sex education: “to handle women, to find the secret parts of women” [cited in English]; how to make women well disposed toward one, how to force them to obey, how to get behind their wiles and

dodges and keep oneself unscathed. The pupils of the chieftain class are initiated into tribal life, its structure, the regulations about inheritance and the election of a new chief, the ceremonial at the king's court, the tribal traditions, relationships with neighboring tribes, warfare. The pupils in the class of religion are taught chiefly about medicine, magic and counter-magic, offerings, ordeals, sand-beating and other fortune-telling, about spirits, water-people and hill-people, forest devils, totem animals and plants and their treatment, about God. Naturally, everything worth knowing about the Poro Society itself and other secret societies is taught, especially the duties toward members and strangers. The pupils learn the secret characteristics and signs by which initiates recognize each other and can communicate unobtrusively, "and all kinds of tricks and rascality" [cited in English]. Instruction about sex is postponed until the later years when the boys reach maturity."

Westerman, D. H., & Schütze, F. (1921). The Kpelle: a negro tribe in Liberia. Vandenhoeck & Ruprecht; J. C. Hinrichs'sche Buchhandlung. p. 292B. <https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fd06-007>

"The technical teaching covers all skills: plaiting mats, weaving, basketry; making sieves, traps, fish nets, weirs; roofing, blacksmithing, hunting; carving dugouts, mortars and drums; making game boards. Other requirements are: proficiency in games, in drumming and dancing, learning songs and folktales. Certain equipment, such as blacksmith tools and game boards, is made only in the bush and may therefore not be sold. A large part of the training period is taken up with sex education: "to handle women, to find the secret parts of women" [cited in English]; how to make women well disposed toward one, how to force them to obey, how to get behind their wiles and dodges and keep oneself unscathed. The pupils of the chieftain class are initiated into tribal life, its structure, the regulations about inheritance and the election of a new chief, the ceremonial at the king's court, the tribal traditions, relationships with neighboring tribes, warfare. The pupils in the class of religion are taught chiefly about medicine, magic and counter-magic, offerings, ordeals, sand-beating and other fortune-telling, about spirits, water-people and hill-people, forest devils, totem animals and plants and their treatment, about God. Naturally, everything worth knowing about the Poro Society itself and other secret societies is taught, especially the duties toward members and strangers. The pupils learn the secret characteristics and signs by which initiates recognize each other and can communicate unobtrusively, "and all kinds of tricks and rascality" [cited in English]. Instruction about sex is postponed until the later years when the

boys reach maturity."

p288 (contextual information)

"Entrance to the Poro school takes place between the ages of seven and fifteen, rarely later. The complete course lasts four years. During this time the pupils can learn everything that is taught in the Poro and reach the upper grades. Many, however, enter during the course and remain two or three years, one year, or even only a few months. Well-to-do people can shorten the training period of their children at will by means of gifts to the 'namū. Private lessons with a zō can also replace part of the stay in the bush, if one can prove, according to certain criteria, that one is an accepted member. It may even happen that a young man takes part only in the entrance ceremonies and is thus regarded as a member. This happens, for example, if a man, for some reason, has not attended the Poro, perhaps because he was away from home, but then wishes to get married and for this purpose must become a member.

A new Poro-bush is opened up at the beginning of the dry season, that is, from November on, when the field work of the year is completed. Entrance in the school and thus in the Society is nominally voluntary, but actually reluctant candidates are forced. Parents, with happy anticipation, wait for the time when their son can become a member of the Poro, and they gladly bear the trouble and costs involved, the long separation that is also painful for Negro mothers, and the dangers threatening their children in the bush. They will describe to their children, in harsh colors, the experiences awaiting them in the bush, the demands that will be made on them, and their privations, and will prepare them for dreadful things. At this time the 'namū with his retinue scours the villages and roads and where he finds an uninitiated one at the proper age he will take him along without further ado. His parents will later on find out only that the 'namū devoured him. If the 'namū happens to know that the women are absent, he will himself enter a hut and drag out potential shirkers. Often, the father, after arranging with the grand master, will send his boy on an errand and will let the unsuspecting one be caught along the way."